5 Analysis of British Policies in India (From 1757-1947)

British policies in India profoundly transformed its economy, polity, and society, shaping the foundations of modern India. These policies were primarily driven by the motives of imperial control and economic exploitation. To understand the nature and impact of these policies, it is essential to first explore the concept of colonialism and its various stages in India.

Stages of Colonialism in India

- Colonialism is a modern historical phenomenon, emerging alongside industrial capitalism. It marks a specific phase in a colony's transformation—from a traditional economy to a modern capitalist one. India is widely regarded as a classic example of such a colony.

Different stages of its colonialism are:

- **First stage: Monopoly of Trade and Plunder (1757-1813):**
  - **Conquests facilitating monopoly:** With the conquest of Bengal along with certain parts of South India, followed by the rest of India, both goals of monopolising trade and syphoning off government resources were swiftly achieved in the first stage.
  - **Monopolising handicrafts:** Now, the East India Company took advantage of its influence in politics to monopolise trade and handicrafts in India.
  - **Changes made during this period:** The colony underwent no fundamental changes in this stage. Changes were made only in military organization and technology and at the top level of revenue administration.

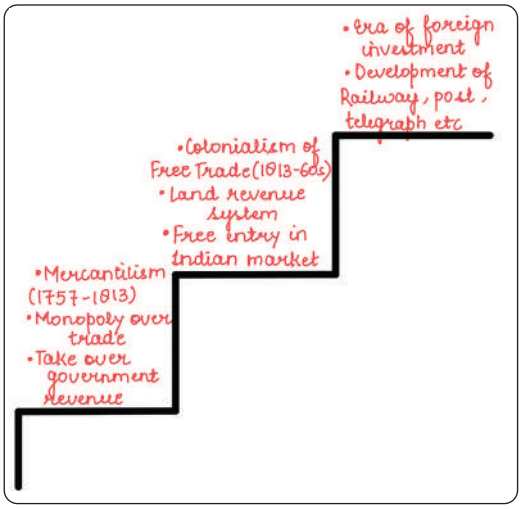

Fig. 5.1: Stages of Colonialism in India
Diagram Type: *Ladder*

- **Second stage: Era of Free Trade (1813-1860):**
  - **One-way free trade policy:** One of the most important features was the one-way free trade policy of the British government, which transformed India into an exporter of raw materials and an importer of British manufactured goods.
  - **Administration:** The administration was made more detailed and comprehensive so that imports could penetrate the villages and raw materials could be taken out easily.
  - **Commercialization of Agriculture:** One of the most important features was the commercialization of agriculture which was a forced and artificial process for the majority of Indian peasants.
  - **Westernized habits:** These were promoted to increase the demand for British goods.
- **Third stage: Era of Finance Capital (1860 onwards):**
  - **Increase in investment:** There was a significant amount of investment in India's railroads, loans to the government of India, trade, and to a lesser level in plantations, coal mining, jute mills, shipping, and banking.
  - **Emerging competition:** At this time, competition from other new imperialist nations presented a persistent threat to Britain's standing in the world. As a result, its hold over India was further strengthened.
  - **No industrial revolution but expansion:** Three major events—the First World War, the Great Depression (1929–34), and World War II—reduced or halted foreign trade and the entrance of foreign money. But because the ties were only loose, not broken, there was simply industrial expansion and not an industrial revolution in India.

Extension of British Paramountcy

The East India Company maintained that its powers were stronger than those of Indian states and that its powers were supreme or paramount, according to the Policy of Paramountcy**.** The process of imperial expansion and consolidation of British paramountcy was carried on by the Company during the 1757-1857 period through the policy of annexation by diplomacy and administrative mechanisms.

The Policy of Ring-Fence (1765-1813):

- **Meaning:** Ring-fencing was a strategy employed by Warren Hastings to fortify the Company's frontiers by establishing buffer zones.

- **Objectives:** In general, it was a strategy of defending their neighbours' borders to protect their territories.
- **Description:** It required the states to maintain subsidiary forces that were to be organised, supplied, and led by Company officers who, in turn, were to be compensated by the state's leaders.
- **Example:** After the Buxar War in 1964, Awadh was used as a buffer state.

Subsidiary Alliance (1798 Onwards)

- **Origin**: Lord Wellesley had designed the Subsidiary Alliance in India as a "Non-Intervention Policy," but French Governor Dupleix coined the phrase.
- **Objective:** The fundamental objective was to control Indian forces without going to war and incurring costs.
- **Description:** The company's soldiers had to be installed under this method by the Indian kings. They also had to cover all the costs associated with running the troops and the rulers must continue to host British citizens in their courts.
- **Example:** The first ruler to accept the Subsidiary Alliance was the Nizam of Hyderabad.

Scholar's View

"Wellesley converted the British Empire in India to the British Empire of India. From one of the political powers in India, the Company became the supreme power in India and claimed the whole country as its sole protectorate. From Wellesley's time onwards the defence of India was the Company's responsibility" — **Sidney J. Owen**

The Doctrine of Lapse (1848-1859)

- **Description:** According to the doctrine, if a princely state subject to the company's vassalage fails to produce an heir, the land will be annexed by the British.
- **Example:** Lord Dalhousie adopted this strategy extensively to annex Indian states. E.g. annexation of Jhansi, Satara, Nagpur, Udaipur etc.

Doctrine of Mis-governance (1848-1856)

- **Description:** Annexation of the Indian states based on maladministration by the Indian ruler.
- **Example:** Dalhousie annexed Awadh in 1856 under the pretext of mis-governance citing maladministration under Wajid Ali Shah, the last Awadh ruler.

Why British Introduced these policies?

- **Expansion of British empire:** To expand the British Empire in India by bringing new territories under its control.
- **Mitigating French influence:** To decrease the French influence so that the British could become the paramount power in India.
- **Conquests of Indian states without war:** Open annexation would have created political complication both for the company in India and the home government.
- **Increase in revenue:** To enable the British East India Company to monopolise their dominion over India State which increases their revenue.
- **Safeguarding company's frontiers:** By introducing policy of ring fence, the company sought to defend its territories from other regional and foreign threats.

Impact of these policies

- **Transformation of the EIC:** The company had now grown from a predominantly commercial into a predominantly territorial power.
- **Control over Indian rulers:** British took over the authority of deciding the competence of the Indian rulers and their military and foreign relations.
- **Control over Princely states:** The Company took over the princely states of Satara, Jaitpur , Sambalpur, Nagpur and Jhansi etc under its control.
- **Subordination of the Indian economy to British interests:** The policies resulted in direct control of the British over India's economy, agriculture, revenue etc.
- **Revolt of 1857:** Policies like doctrine of lapse and doctrine of misgovernance became a cause for the revolt.
- **Direct rule of the British Crown:** The policies led to the revolt of 1857 which ultimately led to the downfall of the company and the administration of India went directly under the Queen.

British Foreign Policy in India

During the British Raj, foreign policy combined imperialism, strategic interests, and economic motives to safeguard and expand British influence. It focused on managing ties with neighboring powers to secure control over India. Below is a detailed analysis of the key aspects and strategies of British foreign policy in India:

Strategic Buffer and Expansion

1. **The Great Game:**
   - British foreign policy in India was significantly influenced by the so-called "Great Game," a term used to describe the geopolitical rivalry between the British Empire and Tsarist Russia. The main concern was the protection of India from possible Russian expansion southwards.
   - The British fortified India's northwest frontier and engaged in several Afghan Wars (1839-1842, 1878-1880, 1919) to establish a buffer state in Afghanistan that would prevent Russian advances towards the Indian subcontinent.
2. **North-East Frontier:** Similarly, the British policy aimed at securing the northeast borders of India. This involved annexing regions like Assam, and manipulating local chieftains in hill areas through political agents. The McMahon Line, drawn in 1914, sought to define borders between British India and Tibet, though it was contested by China.

Economic Exploitation and Trade

1. **Trade Monopolies:**
   - The British East India Company initially held monopoly control over British trade in India. This monopoly allowed the British to exploit India's vast resources, manipulate local economies, and dictate terms of trade favoring Britain.
   - After the Crown took over in 1858, these policies continued with the British government promoting policies that benefited the British economy at the expense of India's, including the de-industrialization of India to make it a market for British goods and a source of raw materials.
2. **Infrastructure for Exploitation:** The construction of railways, roads, and ports facilitated the easier extraction and export of resources. While ostensibly a modernizing influence, the infrastructure was primarily designed to consolidate British control and economic interests.

Diplomatic Manipulations and Treaties

1. **Subsidiary Alliances:** Initiated by Lord Wellesley, subsidiary alliances were treaties that essentially established Indian princely states as vassal states under British protection but with significant loss of sovereignty. This policy not only expanded British territory but also prevented other European powers, like the French, from gaining influence in India.
2. **Divide and Rule:** The British employed a strategic divide-and-rule policy that exacerbated divisions within India, such as those between Hindus and Muslims, to prevent unified opposition against British rule. This had lasting impacts on communal relations in India.

Handling of Princely States

1. **Doctrine of Lapse:** Introduced by Lord Dalhousie, this policy stipulated that any princely state or territory under direct influence of the British would automatically be annexed if the ruler was either "manifestly incompetent or died without a direct heir." This policy helped expand British territories in India without direct military conquest.
2. **Paramountcy:** Under the doctrine of paramountcy, the British Crown claimed ultimate authority over the princely states, overriding both external and internal sovereignty. This allowed the British to control the foreign affairs of these states and integrate them into the British administrative framework.

British foreign policy in India was shaped by strategic, economic, and political motives to secure and expand British interests. These policies deeply impacted India's political and economic structure, leaving lasting challenges that continued beyond independence.

Development of Press

To prevent the growth of patriotic sentiment through the Indian press, the British government made an effort to exert control over it. The development of the Indian press was hampered by developmental issues, illiteracy, colonial limitations, and repression. It spread liberation beliefs and became an important weapon in the struggle for independence.

Origin of the Press in India

- **1st printing machine in India:** In 1556, the Portuguese brought a printing machine to India at Goa to promote Christianity.
- **Hickey's Bengal Gazette:** The Bengal Gazette, India's first newspaper, was started by James Augustus Hickey in 1780. It exposed the corrupt practices of the company's servants and Warren Hastings.

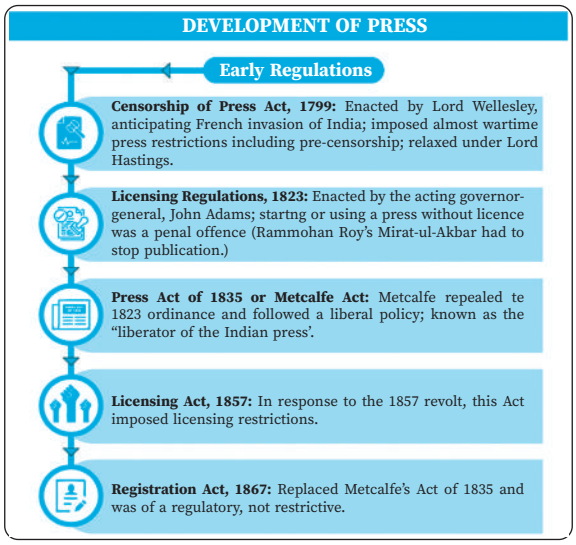

Fig. 5.2: Early Press Regulations

Censorship and Regulations

- **Censorship of Press Act 1799:** Anticipating the French invasion of India, Lord Wellesley enacted this act imposing wartime press restrictions including pre-censorship.
- **Licensing Regulations, 1823:** According to this act, enacted by John Adams, starting or using a press without a licence was a penal offence.
- **Press Act of 1835 or Metcalfe Act:** Metcalfe repealed the obnoxious 1823 act and thus liberated the press which resulted in the rapid growth of newspapers.
- **Licensing Act, 1857:** The Indian press was subject to limitations after the uprising of 1857. The government has the power to forbid any newspaper or book from being published.
- **Registration Act 1867:** This act replaced the Metcalfe Act. It mandated every book/newspaper to include the printer and publisher's names, as well as the location of publication.

Nationalism and the Indian Press:

- **Vernacular Press Act, 1878:**
  - **Origin:** It was introduced by Lord Lytton in 1878.
  - **Reason:** Due to the increasing impact of the writings in the press, particularly in the language press.
  - **Objective:** For spin gently controlling the newspapers.
  - **Provision:** Under these regulations, any district magistrate or a police commissioner was empowered to force the printer and publisher of a newspaper to agree not to publish certain kinds of material, to demand security, and to confiscate any printed matter it deemed to be objectionable.

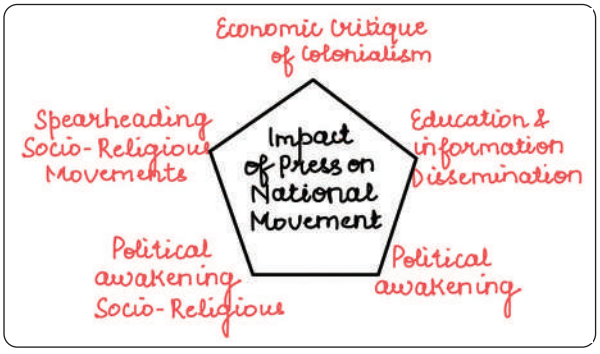

Fig. 5.3: Impact of Press on National Movement
Diagram Type: *Hub & Spoke*

- **Newspaper (Incitement to Offences Act, 1908):** This act gave magistrates the authority to seize press property when it published offensive content that would have catalyzed violent extremist acts or as a justification for murder.
- **Indian Press Act, 1910:** It empowered the Local Governments to issue warrants against any newspaper or book containing seditious matters, which were to be forfeited to His Majesty and thus prohibited the publication of a large amount of nationalist press and political literature.
- **Indian Press (Emergency Powers) Act, 1931:** The Indian Press Act of 1931 granted provincial governments broad authority to curb propaganda encouraging civil disobedience. In 1932, it was broadened to cover all actions intended to undermine governmental authority.

Scholar's View

"In order to keep the press fully posted with accurate and current information, Lytton instituted the post of "Press Commissioner for India". His main job was to liaise between the press and the government" - ***N. Krishm Murthy***

Evolution of Civil Services in India

The early beginnings of civil service in India date back to the years following 1757 when the East India Company became the de facto ruler in several regions. The company established the Covenanted Civil Services (CCS).

Events affecting its evolution

- **Appointment of collector:** In 1770, the then governor general Warren Hastings divided Bengal into districts and appointed collector.
- **Separation of power:** Governor-general Cornwallis separated the judiciary from the collector. Hence he is known as the **'father of civil services'.**
  - Wellesley established **Fort William College** in 1800 for training the newly recruited civil servants.
- **Patronage system:** Till 1853, all civil servants were nominated by the Court of Directors.
- **Charter Act, 1853:** Court of Directors lost the patronage system. Hence, exams were to be held in London for selecting civil servants.
- **Indian Civil Service Act, 1861:** The civil services act 1861 laid down that any person, whether Indian or European could be appointed to any of the offices (specified in the schedule annexed), provided that he had resided for a minimum of 7 years in India.
- **Statutory Civil Service** - Lytonn introduced statutory Civil Service consisted of one-sixth of coveneted post to be filled by indians of high families through nomination by local govt subject to approval by secratery of state and Viceroy
- **Aitchison Commission:** The Aitchison Commission was appointed in 1886 to review the organisation of the Indian civil services. The commission submitted its report in 1887, recommending the reorganisation of the services into three groups: Imperial, Provincial, and Subordinate.

- **Government of India Act, 1919:** It provided for the establishment of the **Public Service Commission** at the provincial level.
  - The time civil services exams were held in India was in 1923.
- **Lee Commission:** In 1923, the British government asked the Lee Commission to investigate the racial composition of the superior Indian public services offered by the Indian government.
- **Government of India Act, 1935:** It provided for the establishment of the Federal Public Service Commission.
- **Post-Independence:** J. L Nehru wanted to abolish the ICS but Sardar Patel emphasised creating a strong bureaucracy.

Role of Civil Services in British India

- **Commercial affairs:** Initially, the servants of the company who were involved in commercial affairs were the civil servants.
- **As collector:** He was the head of the revenue organization, charged with registration, alteration, and partition of holdings; the settlement of disputes; the management of indebted estates; loans to agriculturists, and famine relief.
- **As district magistrate:** He exercised general supervision over the inferior courts and in particular, directed the police work.
- **Held all the key posts:** These officers surrounded the Viceroy and dominated the provincial governments.
- **Overseeing government activity:** They were ultimately responsible for overseeing all government activity in the two hundred and fifty districts that comprised British India.
- **Safety valve:** Some historians are of the view that A.O Hume, a civil servant, formed the INC for releasing the growing discontent of the Indians.

How Civil Servant Helped in British Expansion?

British civil servants played a crucial role in facilitating the expansion and consolidation of British rule in India through strategic administration, policy enforcement, and infrastructure development. Some of them are as follows:

- **Administrative Control:** Lord Cornwallis reformed the administrative system by introducing the Cornwallis Code, which professionalized the civil service, thereby ensuring efficient governance and control over vast territories.
- **Revenue Collection:** The implementation of the Permanent Settlement in Bengal by civil servants under Cornwallis standardized revenue collection, significantly increasing the revenue flow to Britain and stabilizing British economic interests in the region.
- **Legal and Judicial Roles:** The establishment of the Indian Civil Service (ICS) created a cadre of civil servants who enforced British laws and suppressed local dissent, thereby embedding British authority more deeply within Indian society.
- **Survey and Mapping:** The Great Trigonometrical Survey led by Sir George Everest provided detailed geographical data that was essential for military and administrative planning, aiding the expansion of British control into new regions.
- **Diplomatic and Political Manipulation:** Civil servants like Lord Dalhousie utilized the Doctrine of Lapse policy to annex states whose rulers were deemed incompetent or who died without a biological heir, significantly expanding British territory in India.
- **Infrastructure Development:** Under British civil servant administration, the development of railways, such as the establishment of the Indian Railways network starting in 1853, facilitated the rapid movement of troops and goods, integrating the Indian economy with global markets and reinforcing British dominance.

Development of Local Bodies under British Rule

The British came to India as traders. The local governments were hardly their first priority. In fact, till the advent of British rule in India, the rural republic had flourished and thrived. During the British period, the Panchayati Raj institution was created only to collect revenue and the power was actually not transferred to the institution.

Measures Taken with Regard to Local Bodies:

- In the initial days of British rule, the interest of the British was limited to the creation of local bodies with nominated members. These bodies were built around trading centres.
- It was Lord Mayo, the then viceroy of India (1869 to 1872), who felt the need to decentralise powers to bring about administrative efficiency and in the year 1870 introduced the concept of elected representatives in the urban municipalities.
- **The Bengal Chowkidar Act, 1870:**
  - The original village panchayati system in Bengal was revived with the Bengal Chowkidar Act of 1870.
  - The Chowkidar Act gave district judges the authority to form panchayats in the villages with designated members to collect taxes for the chowkidars or watchmen they employed.
- **Ripon Resolution, 1882:**
  - Incredibly, Lord Ripon (Father of the Local self Government of India) contributed to the growth of local government. He abandoned the previous in-place system of municipal administration run by formally nominated members.
  - His local self-government proposal called for the local boards to be divided into smaller groups to increase efficiency.
  - He established an election process for the local boards to ensure public engagement.

- **Royal Commission on Decentralisation (1908)**
  - Village Panchayat entrusted with more powers like judicial jurisdiction, adequate income sources
- **Montagu-Chelmsford Reforms of 1919:**
  - This reform transferred the subject of local government to the domain of provinces.
  - The reform also recommended that as far as possible there should be complete popular control in local bodies and the largest possible independence for them, from outside control.
- **Government of India Act (1935):**
  - Most provincial administrations felt obligated to pass laws to further democratise local self-government organisations, including village panchayats, as a result of the provinces having popularly elected governments.

British Policy towards Indian States

The British policy towards the princely states of India was determined by their own ambitions which ranged from reaching parity to complete subjugation. The various British Rule policies can be used to chart the development of interactions between British rule and Indian states.

Policy of the British	Description of the Policy
Policy of Ring of Fence (1765-1813)	❖ This policy, which attempted to establish buffer zones to protect the Company's borders, was reflected in Warren Hastings' conflicts with the Marathas and the Mysore Empire. ❖ Wellesley's subsidiary alliance policy was an extension of the ring fence policy.
Policy of Subordinate Isolation (1813-1857)	❖ As the idea of imperialism spread, the ideology of paramountcy started to take shape. ❖ Indian nations were expected to cooperate with the British administration in a subordinate manner to recognise its superiority. ❖ The states retained internal administrative sovereignty but gave up all forms of exterior sovereignty.
Policy of Subordinate Union (1857-1935)	❖ With the power to declare war, peace, or neutrality for states, the Indian government possessed total and undeniable influence over international affairs. ❖ The British government exercised its right to intervene in the internal affairs of states. ❖ For international relations, state territory is in the same position as British territory, and state subjects are in the same position as British subjects," wrote the Butler Commission in 1927.
Policy of Equal Federation (1935-1947)	❖ The Government of India Act of 1935 proposed a Federal Assembly. ❖ To enlist the assistance of Princely States in reducing the power of the National Movement.

Economic Policies of the British (UPSC 2014)

The British economic policies aimed solely at serving their own interests, with no intent to improve India's economy or welfare. These policies structurally transformed India into a supplier of raw materials and a consumer of British manufactured goods, turning it into a market for industrialised Britain.

Economic policy during different phases:

- **Early phase of the foundation of British rule:**
  - The company's priority was to finance Indian trade through Indian resources.
  - British policy in India placed a strong emphasis on increasing revenue collection and encouraging trade investment.
  - Consequently, the drain of wealth started from India to Britain which impoverished Bengal and adversely affected the Indian economy.
- **Early 19th century:**
  - Rise of industrial capitalism in Britain.
  - Shift in economic policy to convert India into a market for Britain's finished goods while supplying raw materials.
  - It resulted in the decline of handicraft industries and the commercialization of agriculture which caused poverty, unemployment and recurring incidence of famine.
- **Post-1858:**
  - India was kept open for British capital investment.
  - The influx of capital from Britain to India for investment in railways, the shipping industry etc and in return, home charges incurred.

Economic Drain Theory and its Proponents

The drain was conceived as a unilateral transfer of resources from India to Britain without any corresponding economic or commercial gain.

Constituents of the drain of wealth:

- **Commercial revenues:** Through territorial expansion, the company was able to increase commercial revenues and get access to Indian goods for export.
- **Transfer of private capital:** The transfer of private capital to England was also part of the drain.
- **Home Charges** also formed a major part of the drain. This included salaries/ pensions paid to the Company's employees in England.
- **Salary:** The money paid to banks, insurance companies, and shipping corporations in England for services provided in India was another way that wealth was transferred away from India.

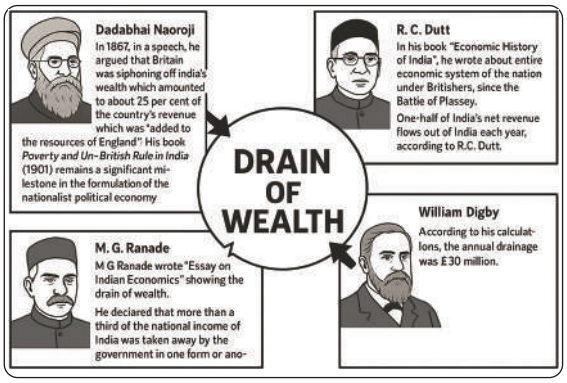

Fig. 5.4: Major Proponents of Drain of Wealth

Impact of the Drain of Wealth:

- **Revenue Export:** A large share of India's revenue went to Britain as *Home Charges*—covering British civil and military services, pensions, and investment returns. For instance, Indian taxpayers funded salaries and pensions of British officials in India.
- **Deindustrialization of India:** British policies promoted imports of British goods while suppressing Indian industries through high tariffs on Indian products and minimal duties on British goods. Traditional centers like Dhaka, known for muslin, saw their weaving industry collapse.
- **Capital Investments for British Benefit:** Infrastructure like railways and telegraphs mainly served British interests—moving raw materials to ports and bringing British goods inland. This undermined local enterprise rather than supporting Indian development.
- **Agricultural Exploitation:** Emphasis on cash crops (e.g., cotton, indigo) for export replaced food crops, leading to food shortages and famines. Forced cultivation policies hurt food security and disrupted the rural economy.

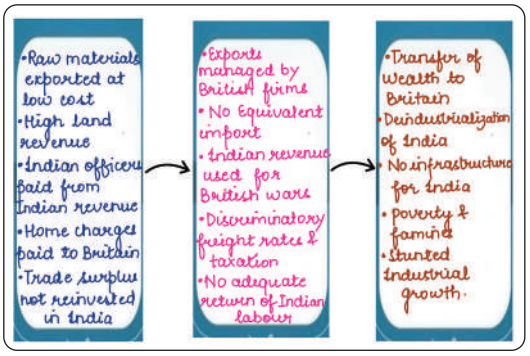

Fig. 5.5: Process of Drain of Wealth
Diagram Type: *Input Process Output*

- **Famines and Poverty:** Colonial policies, including heavy taxation and export-oriented agriculture, triggered famines such as the Bengal Famine of 1770, the 1876–78 famine, and the 1940s Bengal Famine. Even during these crises, food exports to Britain continued.
- **Neglect of Education and Health:** Drained wealth was rarely used for public welfare. India's low literacy rates and poor health infrastructure, compared to other British colonies, reflected chronic underinvestment in human development.

How drain of wealth theory appealed general masses

- **Economic awakening:** People realised that the British rule was inimical to the economic interests of India because the economic policies of the colonial government were geared towards the benefits of Britain.
- **Economic Nationalism:** Economic Nationalism emerged in India out of the ideological contestation between the colonial government officials and the early nationalists who propounded the Drain of Wealth theory.
- **Anti-Imperialist feeling:** It started to grow in the masses because of widespread poverty and exploitation.
- **Exposure to the reality of the British:** It exposed the exploitative and selfish nature of British rule and made people believe that the British were the main reason for existing poverty.

Revenue Policies, Indian Agriculture and British Rule

Maximising revenue from the colony became the main goal of the British administration after the Diwani of Bengal, Bihar, and Orissa were awarded to the East India Company in 1765. The company's primary source of revenue was from agricultural taxes, and it had to distribute dividends to its British investors. To achieve this, the British government experimented with a variety of land revenue strategies.

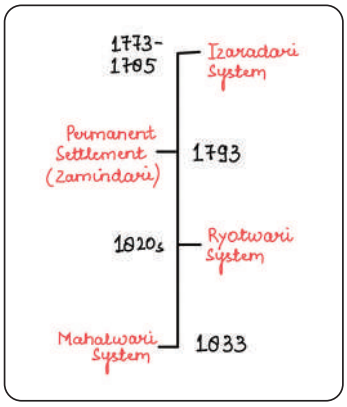

Fig. 5.6: Land Revenue System in British India
Diagram Type: *Timeline*

Land Revenue Systems

Izaredar system (1773):

- Under revenue farming, introduced by Warren Hastings in Bengal, European District Collectors would 'farm' out the right to collect money to the highest bidder.
- Due to the arbitrarily high revenue demands, this system was a complete disaster and destroyed the growers.

- The failure of the Izaredar system highlighted the need for a more equitable and sustainable revenue collection method, eventually leading to the introduction of the Permanent Settlement in 1793.

Permanent settlement (1793):

- **Origin:** Cornwallis introduced the system of Permanent Settlement in 1793 under which the zamindars were established as the proprietors or owners of the land.
- **Role of zamindars:** Zamindars collected land revenue from the farmers. The state was to receive 10/11th of the rent the zamindars collected from the peasantry, with only 1/11th going to the zamindars themselves. The amounts they were required to pay as land revenue were made permanent.
- **Regions:** West Bengal, Bihar, Odisha, UP, Andhra Pradesh, and Madhya Pradesh had the highest prevalence of the system.
- **Advantages:**
  - **Increased crop production:** The company aimed to establish a business-minded class of landowners through this system, who would work to increase crop production in their farms to make money.
  - **Ease of administration:** Dealing with a small number of zamindars rather than every peasant would be easier for the state.
  - **Rise of loyal class:** A significant portion of society would develop loyalty to the British government.
- **Drawbacks:**
  - **Impoverishment:** It led to greater impoverishment of the tenant-cultivator because of the burden of high revenue assessment.
  - **Sunset clause:** It also caused great difficulty for zamindars, many of whom were unable to pay the revenue on time and lost their lands under the 'sunset clause'.
  - **Collapse of Zamindar Houses:** A large number of traditional zamindar houses collapsed.
  - **Sub-infeudation:** The system also encouraged sub-infeudation i.e. many layers of intermediaries between the zamindar and cultivator, adding to the woes of the peasantry.

Ryotwari system (1820):

- **Origin:** Under the Ryotwari system, introduced by Alexander Read and Thomas Munro, revenue was initially collected from each village separately, but later each cultivator or 'ryot' was assessed individually.
- **Property Ownership:** Peasants, not zamindars, were established as property owners.
- **Regions:** Madras, Bombay presidencies.
- **Advantages:** Increased revenue collected by the state due to the absence of any intermediary.
- **Drawbacks:**
  - The assessments were faulty.
  - The peasants were overburdened by the taxes.
  - Unable to pay the taxes, the peasants go-to money lenders who exploited them.

Mahalwari system (1822):

- Under this system, introduced by Holt Mackenzie, the state made settlements with either the village community or, in some cases, the traditional 'taluqdar'.
- Some recognition was given to collective proprietary rights.
- **Regions:** North and North-West parts of India.
- **Advantages:**
  - Stabilised income for the government.
  - The more efficient revenue system.
- **Drawbacks:**
  - The exploitation of the farmers/cultivators.
  - The farmers were bound to pay taxes even in drought

Impact of the Land Revenue System

- **Lack of innovation in agriculture:** Agriculture becomes stagnant owing to the lack of any technological innovation due to the poor financial condition of the cultivators.
- **Poor condition of peasants:** Peasants almost became tenants at will.
- **Absentee landlordism:** It increased the number of landed intermediaries and sub-intermediaries giving rise to absentee landlordism.
- **Rise of the money lending class:** Time-bound and excessive demand for revenue by the British government forced the peasants to take loans from the moneylenders who in turn exploited the peasants by imposing high-interest rates.
- **Rise of landlords and zamindars:** Landlords and zamindars became an important class and collaborators of British colonial rule.

- **Territorial expansion:** The greed for income from land revenue also led the Company to pursue an aggressive policy of territorial expansion in India.

Commercialisation of Agriculture

- The commercialization of Indian agriculture started post-1813 when the industrial revolution in England gained pace.
- Around 1860 A.D., commercial agriculture started to gain prominence, coinciding with the Industrial Revolution.
- The crops on which the company concentrated were indigo, cotton, raw silk, opium, pepper, and, in the 19th century, also tea and sugar.

Factors leading to commercialisation:

- **British paramountcy:** British-instituted political unification and the emergence of the single national market that followed.
- **Industrial Revolution in Britain:** Many commercial crops such as cotton, jute, tea, and tobacco were introduced to meet the demand for raw materials in Britain.
- **Cultural erosion:** The replacement of custom and tradition by competition and contract also led to the commercialization of Indian agriculture.
- **Improved communication and transport infrastructure:** The ability to trade agricultural goods, especially across vast distances, was made possible by improved communication and transport like the expansion of railways etc.
- **Monetization of land revenue payments:** The spread of the money economy replaced the barter and agricultural goods became market items.
- **Effects of commercialisation:**
  - **Impoverishment:**
    - The exports of cash crops served essentially to remit resources out of India.
    - The Indian 'tribute' was transferred to Britain.
    - India received no imports in return for these exports.
  - **Increased dependency on moneylenders:** Indian moneylenders advanced Cash advances to the farmers to cultivate the commercial crops and if the peasants failed to pay them back in time, the land of peasants came under the ownership of moneylenders.
  - **Instability in the rural economy:**
    - Commercialisation led to instability in the price.
    - **For example,** if the West Indian sugar crop was good, prices might fall in Calcutta, and the sugar factories in Azamgarh might pay the peasants less than they had promised.
  - **Under-development of full labour market:** The continues use of coercion and State power distorted the markets and prevented the appearance of a full labour market.
  - **Small farming:** Neither the methods nor the organisation of production was altered. As a result, small farming based on family labour remained the predominant form in the Indian countryside.
  - **Occurrence of famine:** Scarcity of food grains due to the substitution of commercial non-food crops which resulted in a reduction in the area under cultivation of food crops.
  - **Peasant Revolts:** Oppression of Indian peasants by the British eg. Indigo revolt in 1859.
  - **Positive impact:**
    - **Social exchange:** Commercialisation encouraged social exchange and it made possible the transformation of the Indian economy into a capitalistic form.
    - **Economic nationalism:** It strengthened economic nationalism when agricultural problems acquired national form.
    - **Region specific crop cultivation:** It also brought about regional specialization of crops on an efficient basis.

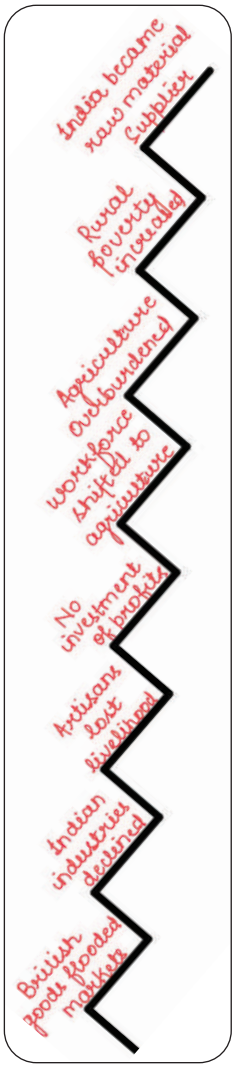

Fig. 5.7: Ruralisation and Deindustrialisation of India
Diagram Type: *Ladder*

Historian's View

"The servants of the Company forced the natives to buy dear and sell cheap... Enormous fortunes were thus rapidly accumulated at Calcutta, while thirty millions of human beings were reduced to the extremity of wretchedness. They had never [had to live] under tyranny like this..." — ***Macaulay***

Decline of Traditional Artisanal Industry and the Crippling of the Rural Economy (UPSC 2017, 2024)

The decline started post-1757 when the EIC established a monopoly over the production of the Bengal artisans. Artisans were forced to supply goods at low prices to the Company which created great hardship for the weavers and other artisans.

Factors Behind the Decline

- **The disappearance of court culture:** Artisans were deprived of patrons and contractual transactions owing to the disappearance of court culture
- **Anglicisation of Indians:** The newly established Indian "bourgeoisie" not only despised local industries' goods but also attempted to imitate everything European.
- **Competition from machine-made goods:** The British could import their machine-made textiles to India and sell them at a lower price and in greater quantities.
- **One-way trade policies:** Britishers were able to access Indian markets duty-free. In contrast, substantial taxes were imposed on Indian goods in the European markets.
- **Prohibition of use and possession of arms:** British rule also effectively killed a handicraft which used to produce arms, weapons and shields by active prohibition of their use and possession.
- **Development of infrastructure:** Improved transport facilities like railways made India's hinterland accessible for economic and commercial exploitation.

Role of Industrial Revolution in England

The Industrial Revolution in England (mid-18th to early 19th century) brought profound changes in global trade and production patterns. Its impact on India's traditional industries was significant but intertwined with other colonial policies.

- **Mass Production and Machine-made Goods:** British factories produced goods faster and cheaper than Indian artisans. These machine-made textiles flooded Indian markets, outcompeting hand-made products in price and volume.
- **Colonial Trade Policies:** British policies systematically favored imports from England by imposing high duties on Indian goods while allowing duty-free British goods into India. This skewed the market against indigenous producers.
- **Deindustrialization and Economic Drain:** The British emphasis on raw material extraction and export (like cotton) turned India into a supplier of raw materials and a consumer of British finished goods. This process deindustrialized Indian towns once known for skilled crafts.
- **Loss of Patronage and Market Access:** Indian artisans lost traditional patronage from Indian royalty and nobility due to political decline and shifting economic priorities under British rule. Foreign markets were also closed or captured by British manufacturers.
- **Technological Backwardness and Lack of Capital:** Indian craftspeople couldn't compete due to a lack of access to capital, technology, and institutional support, unlike British industries that benefited from state protection and infrastructure.
- **Not the Sole Factor:** While the Industrial Revolution was a major factor, the decline was also driven by colonial administrative and economic decisions, making it a broader systemic issue.

Decline of Traditional Industry and the Subsequent Crippling of the Rural Economy

- **Economic ruralisation:** There were no local enterprises developed to replace the traditional means of subsistence. This aided in the economic ruralization process.
- **Shifting to agriculture:** Due to the decline of traditional employment, artisans turned to agriculture as a source of income which increased dependency and pressure on land.
- **Rise in rural poverty:** Excess dependency on agriculture led to rise in poverty and distorted the village economic set up.
- **Rise of intermediaries:** Merchants, bankers, Baniya, and other middlemen started to rule the economic and social ties in the rural economy under colonialism as cash, credit, and contracts gained popularity.
- **The destitution of tribals and small peasants:** Decrease in demand for MFP by the artisans resulted in the distortion of the tribal economy.
- **The decline of weekly haats**: Suffering of the peasants and artisans resulted in fewer spots-transactions and thus several communities discontinued holding weekly haats.

Deindustrialisation and Ruralisation of the Indian Economy

According to Karl Marx, "It was the British intruder who broke up the Indian handloom and destroyed the spinning wheel. England began by driving the Indian cotton from the European market; it then introduced a twist into Hindustan, and in the end, inundated the very mother country of cotton with cotton". The decay of Dacca, Surat, Murshidabad and many other flourishing towns bears testimony to the deindustrialization of India

The motive behind systematic de-industrialisation:

- **Demand for raw material:** To get the raw materials from India at a cheap rate.
- **Facilitating industrial revolution in Britain:** To reduce India to a mere exporter of raw materials to fulfil the needs of British industries driven by the industrial revolution.
- **Market for British goods:** To sell the British manufactured goods in the Indian market at a higher price.

Events Leading to Deindustrialisation

- **Calico Act**: In 1720, the British government banned the use of printed cotton textiles in England.

- **Charter Act of 1813**: After the **Charter Act of 1813**, cheap and machine-made imports flooded the Indian market.
- **Decline in Indian exports:** After 1820, European markets were virtually closed to Indian exports.
- **Creation of communication infrastructure:** Rail networks established in 1855 facilitate accessibility to the remotest corner of the country.

Historian's View

"The armour of the isolated self-sufficient village was pierced by the steel rail, and its life blood ebbed away" — ***D.H. Buchanan***

Reasons for Deindustrialisation

- **Disappearance of court culture:** The decline of the traditional ruling class that promoted indigenous crafts.
- **No industrialisation in India:** The loss of traditional livelihood was not accompanied by a process of industrialisation in India.
- **Anglicisation of Indians:** These newly created Indian 'bourgeoisie' not only disdained the products of indigenous industries but also tried to copy everything European which was considered to be the "hallmark of enlightenment".
- **Industrial Revolution in Britain:** It resulted in the influx of machine-made goods.
- **Tariff policy:** To put her manufacturing industries on a sound footing at home, England pursued the policy of protection through the imposition of import duties. But for India, she preached the gospel of free trade.
- **Weak industrial structure in India:** Due to which the Indian manufacturers were unable to find new markets. India also did not have a class of industrial entrepreneurs.

Impact of Deindustrialisation

- **Distortion of village economy:** British ended the "blending of agriculture and handicrafts". The internal balance of the village economy was snapped.
- **Unemployment and under-employment:** It caused an imbalance in the occupational structure leading to rural unemployment and under-employment.
- **Deurbanisation:** It led to the decline of many towns.
- **Ruralisation of India:** The artisans were displaced from traditional occupations. Finding no other alternative source of livelihood, the artisans fell back on land.
- **Peasantisation:** overcrowding of agriculture took place which resulted in -
  - problems of subdivision and fragmentation of land holdings
  - over-cultivation or cultivation of inferior and unproductive land
  - subsistence agriculture
  - shortage of capital resources required for improvements in land
- **Stimulating patriotic sentiments:** Patriotic sentiments arose among intellectuals alike in the Moderate, Extremist and Gandhian eras, as well as more directly, in occasional urban and rural explosions of various types.

Differential impact of de-industrialization:

- The failure of imported goods to replace specific varieties of indigenous products.
- The protection provided by the absence of market integration at the village level in many areas.
- The forced continuation of some crafts even though they are unprofitable due to the lack of more viable employment opportunities.

Sudden Spurt in Famines in Colonial India since the Mid-Eighteenth Century (UPSC 2022)

Famine refers to widespread food scarcity leading to hunger and disease-related deaths. Under British rule, India experienced 31 famines. The worst was the Bengal Famine of 1943, which killed around 2–3 million people. These famines were mainly caused by colonial policies such as rack-renting, free trade, agricultural neglect, and high taxes.

Reasons for the Occurrence of Famines

- **Neglecting agricultural investment:** For e.g. food grain production was negatively impacted by poor rainfall since there were no irrigation facilities.
- **Exporting food grains:** The British government kept on exporting food grains to its native country England and elsewhere despite the shortage in India.
- **Feeding army:** It also used food grains to feed its soldiers who were fighting wars in different parts of the world.
- **Poverty:** Famines were a direct result of poverty.
- **Commercialization of agriculture**: Shifting of agriculture from producing food grains to cash crops.
- **Changes in the composition of India's trade** also resulted in food scarcity.

Impact of Famines

- **Stagnation of Population Growth**: It occurs due to mass mortality.
- **Destruction of traditional Indian society**: It happened owing to mass migration, overcrowding, conflicts for the last grain etc.
- **Increased exploitation of women**: It forced a large number of women into prostitution.
- **Cloth famine**: The British army consumed nearly all the textiles produced in India, resulting in scarcity of clean clothing, or any clothing at all.
- **Homeless women and children:** Men began selling off their land as a result of the famine in order to advance and join the army. In their quest for relief, they continued moving from one location to another. The ladies and their kids were left homeless as a result.
- **Unhygienic conditions and outbreak of infection**: The famines cause extensive sanitary problems, appalling hygiene practices, and an outbreak of infection.

Development of Modern Means of Communication and Technology

Under the colonial regime, basic infrastructure such as railways, ports, water transport, posts and telegraphs developed. The real motive behind this development was not to provide basic amenities to the people but to subserve various colonial interests.

Different Infrastructures Developed Under British Rule

Infrastructure	Description
Railways	❖ It enabled people to undertake long-distance travel and thereby break geographical and cultural barriers. ❖ It fostered the commercialisation of Indian agriculture which adversely affected the self-sufficiency of the village economies in India.
Roads	❖ It served the purpose of mobilising the army within India. ❖ To draw out raw materials from the countryside to the nearest railway station or the port to send these to far away England or other lucrative foreign destinations.
Port	❖ To export raw materials and import finished goods from Britain.
Post	❖ Despite serving a useful public purpose, remained inadequate.
Inland waterways	❖ At times it proved uneconomical as in the case of the Coast Canal on the Orissa coast.
Electric Telegraph	❖ It served the purpose of maintaining law and order. ❖ To enhance the efficiency of administration.

How development of these infrastructure helped the Indian freedom struggle?

- **Breaking geographical and cultural barriers:** The railways facilitated the movement of people across the country.
- **Strengthening unity among masses:** The railway stations became sites of mass-nationalism which were used for truly secular purposes by M.K Gandhi, thus strengthening unity among masses.
- **Connected national leaders:** All educated nationalists from various regions of the subcontinent were able to communicate with one another through improved communication infrastructure. They addressed their issues that they were having living under foreign control and exchanged ideas.
- **Exposure of real nature of British rule:** With improved connectivity, people quickly figured out that British rule was to blame for the widespread land theft that occurred throughout the Indian subcontinent, with no region being exempted.
- **Provide easy targets for revolutionaries: For example,** for anti-British sabotage the trains became the most symbolic as well as practical recourse.

Social Policies

Development of Education Under British

Modern education in India began under British rule, replacing traditional Gurukulas and Madrassas. Before 1835, early efforts included the establishment of Calcutta Madrasa in 1781 and Sanskrit College in 1791. After 1835, Macaulay's Minute on Education promoted English as the medium of instruction and emphasized Western knowledge. This led to the founding of universities in Calcutta, Bombay, and Madras in 1857.

Measures Taken between 1764 and 1835

During this period the Britishers tried to learn different regional languages and understand the diverse cultures for better administration through the following establishments:

- **Calcutta Madrasa in 1781:** Warren Hastings established Calcutta Madarsa in 1781 to study Islamic law written in Urdu/Persian.
- **Asiatic Society of Bengal in 1784:** William Jones established the Asiatic Society of Bengal in 1784 to understand Indian culture and history.
- **Sanskrit College in 1791:** Jonathan Duncan established Sanskrit College in 1791 at Varanasi to study Hindu law.
- **Charter Act of 1813:** In the Charter Act of 1813, 1 lakh rupee was allocated for the promotion of the Indian education system.
- **Hindu College in 1817:** Raja Rammohan Roy and David Hare established the Hindu College in 1817

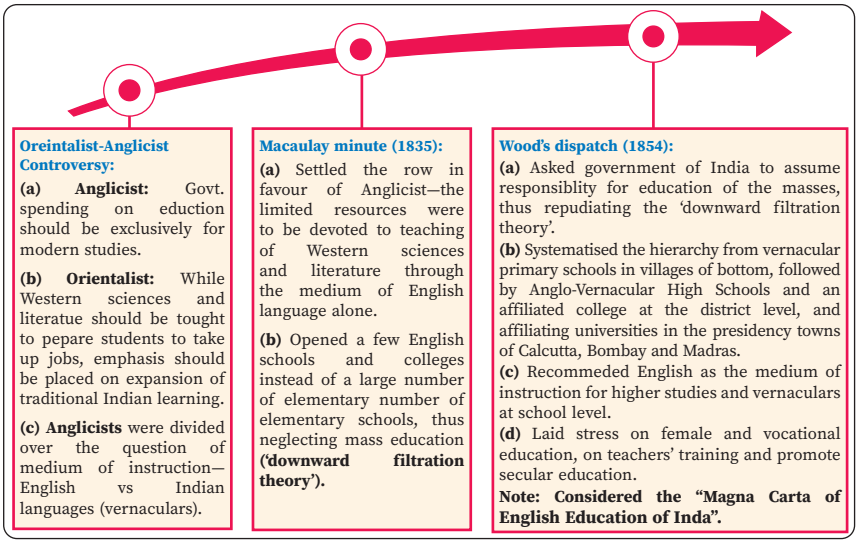

Fig. 5.8: Education Initiatives During British Raj

Measures taken between 1835 and 1947

During this period, the spread of English education was prevalent.

- **Orientalist-Anglicist controversy:** A conflict of opinion on whether the EIC should promote Western education or Indian education and debate over the medium of instruction between English or Indian languages led to a controversy known as the Orientalist-Anglicist Controversy.
- **Lord Macaulay's Minute of 1835:** In 1835, to address the Orientalist-Anglicist controversy, William Bentick formed a General Committee of Public Instruction under the chairmanship of Lord Macaulay who settled the debate in favour of Anglicists.
- **Charles Wood Despatch in 1854:**
  - It is also known as the **Magna Carta of English education.**
  - **Recommendations:**
    - **Medium of instruction:** Woods advocated for the use of vernacular languages in elementary schools, Anglo-vernacular languages in high schools, and English as the medium of teaching for college students.
    - **Mass education:** It recommended expansion of mass education
    - **Creation of universities:** The Despatch advocated for the creation of universities in the three Presidency towns of Calcutta, Bombay, and Madras in 1857.
    - **Grant-in-aid:** A grant-in-aid system for Indian education was promoted by Wood's Despatch.
    - **Women's education:** The Despatch advocated for continued government support of women's education.
    - **Teacher training:** The Wood's Despatch suggested opening teacher training programmes in every province. Teachers in special schools should have training in engineering, medicine, and law.
    - **Network of graded schools:** The Wood's Despatch promoted the creation of a network of graded schools across the country.
  - **Impact:**
    - **Establishment of provincial universities:** In 1857, universities were established in Bombay, Madras, and Calcutta.
    - **Education departments:** These were set up in each province.
    - **Education for women:** Bethune School was founded by J.E.D. Bethune to provide education for women.
    - **Creation of institution:** Both an agricultural institute at Pusa, Bihar, and an engineering institute in Roorkee were established.
    - **Westernisation of education:** British India's educational system swiftly underwent a process of Westernisation thanks to the presence of European headmasters and principals in schools and colleges.
    - **Independent Indian educators:** There were independent Indian educators.
- **Hunter Commission in (1882-1883):** The Hunter Commission, appointed in 1882, emphasised primary and secondary education, recommended more government schools, increased Indian involvement in education administration, and improved female education.
- **Thomas Rayleigh Commission in 1904:** It was established to examine the working of universities in India which led to the Indian University Act 1904.

- **Resolution on Education policy of 1913**: In this policy, the government accepted the responsibility of removal of illiteracy and urged the provincial government to provide free elementary education.
- **Saddler university commission in 1917:** To examine the working of Calcutta University.
- **Hartog Commission of 1929:** The Hartog Commission was set up in 1929 to examine the development of education in India. It focused on reducing dropout rates, promoting vocational education, and improving primary and secondary education.
- **Sergeant Plan of Education in 1944:** It recommended adequate technical, commercial, and arts education.

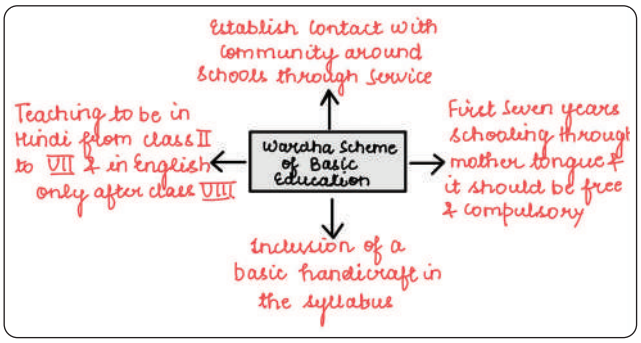

Fig. 5.9: Wardha Scheme of Basic Education
Diagram Type: *Hub & Spoke*

Reasons for spread of English education by the British

- **Filling low-post in Administration:** To assure a low-cost supply of educated Indians to fill an expanding number of subordinate positions in British commercial concerns.
- **Creating market for British goods:** They expected that educated Indians will aid in boosting the market for British goods in India.
- **Glorify British rule:** There was a belief that Western education would help Indians accept British rule, especially as it praised the virtues of the British conquerors and their rule.
- **Strengthening authority:** To fortify the pillars of their political dominance in India through the spread of English education.
- **Pacifying missionaries:** The missionaries promoted the adoption of Western education primarily for proselytising purposes.

Assessment of the British efforts on Education

- **Neglect of Women's Education:** The administration ignored women's education to avoid upsetting orthodox sections.
- **Neglect of Technical Education:** Science and technology were sidelined. By 1857, only three medical colleges (Calcutta, Bombay, Madras) existed, and the Roorkee engineering school admitted only Europeans and Eurasians.
- **Balancing Community and State:** The education system evolved to balance community needs with State interests.
- **Lack of Universal Access:** Educational access varied by local customs; the State imposed no uniform regulations across institutions.
- **Role of Educational Administrator:** English education introduced a distinct role of educational administrator within the system.
- **Uneven Spread of English Education:** English education had a limited reach—more prevalent in urban areas than rural ones.
- **Neglect of Mass Education:** The colonial focus was on creating an educated urban elite to mediate between rulers and the masses, ignoring broader mass education.

Impact of British Education

- **Rise of educated middle class:** It helped in creating a new class of people who later helped the British in governance as well as in controlling many aspects of administration in India.
- **Enhanced role of Christian Missionaries:** Christian missionaries who came to India started opening schools where English was taught.
- **Connecting masses:** Use of English by Indians provided one language that cut across the entire country and became a common link for them.
- **Influence from the West:** English books and newspapers brought to them new ideas from across the sea, i.e. other countries.
- **Rise of national consciousness**: Fresh ideas from the west like freedom, democracy, equality and brotherhood began to have its impact on the thinking of the English knowing Indians which gave rise to national consciousness.
- **Rise of political leaders and social reformers:** It produced a breed of educated political leaders and social reformers who played important roles in the freedom struggle of the country.
- **Awakening among the masses:** The publication of newspapers and pamphlets brought about an awakening among the masses.
- **Sense of inferiority:** Mahatma Gandhi argued that colonial education created a sense of inferiority in the minds of Indians. It made them see Western civilisation as superior, and destroyed the pride they had in their own culture.

Women Education in British India

- **Role of Christian Missionaries:**
  - They took interest in the education of girls.
  - Robert May, a Christian Missionary, in 1814 & 1815, established several schools in Chinsura (Hooghly District) that were also served for the female education.

- **Role of British government:**
  - **Wood's Education Dispatch of 1854:** It gave new focus to women's education.
  - **Hunter commission:** It also emphasised on the need for female education in 1881.
  - **Higher education:** The Calcutta, Bombay and Madras universities did not permit admission to girls upto 1875. After 1882 girls were allowed to go for higher education.
  - **Increase in the minimum marriageable age**: The cause of female education has benefited greatly from the increase in the minimum marriageable age of girls.
- **Social reformers:**
  - **Ishwarchandra Vidyasagar:** Vidyasagar in Calcutta and many other reformers in Bombay set up schools for girls.
  - **Brahmo Samaj:** Members of the Brahmo Samaj wrote journals for the promotion of women's education.
  - **Savitribai Phule:** Hailed as a pioneer in women's education, Savitribai Phule and her husband, social reformer Jyotirao Phule started what is believed to be India's first school for girls Bhidewada in Pune city in 1848, and she became its first teacher.
- **Timeline of development:**
  - **Throughout the 19th century**: Most educated women received home education from liberal fathers or husbands.
  - **Late 19th century**: Arya Samaj in Punjab and Jyotirao Phule in Maharashtra established girls' schools.
  - **Early 20th century**: Muslim women like the Begums of Bhopal promoted education, setting up a girls' school in Aligarh. Begum Rokeya Sakhawat Hossain opened schools for Muslim girls in Patna and Calcutta.
  - **By the 1880s**: Indian women began entering universities, training as doctors or teachers, and expressing views on women's status through writing.
  - **End of the 19th century**: Women took initiative in reforms—writing books, editing journals, founding schools and associations.
  - **Early 20th century**: Women formed political pressure groups demanding voting rights, better healthcare, and education.
  - **20th century**: Leaders like Nehru and Subhas Bose supported gender equality, boosting women's education.

Comparison between Mahatma Gandhi and Rabindra Nath Tagore (UPSC 2023)

Mahatma Gandhi and Rabindranath Tagore, iconic leaders of modern India, offered contrasting yet influential educational visions shaped by their distinct philosophical outlooks.

1. Philosophical Foundations

- **Gandhi**: Rooted in pragmatism and morality, his Nai Talim emphasized self-reliance and integration of education with community life. He saw education as a path to holistic—social, economic, and moral—development.
- **Tagore**: Influenced by both Eastern and Western ideals, Tagore's approach was idealistic. He focused on harmony with nature and aesthetic growth alongside intellectual development, valuing creativity and freedom.

2. Curriculum and Pedagogy

- **Gandhi**: Promoted a work-based curriculum tied to the learner's socio-economic environment. Manual labor, crafts, and self-sufficiency were taught alongside academics to instill dignity of labor.
- **Tagore**: At Shantiniketan, he offered a wide-ranging curriculum with arts, music, dance, and drama. He favored open-air classrooms, believing conventional settings stifled imagination.

3. Goals of Education

- **Gandhi**: Aimed to build morally upright, self-reliant individuals dedicated to rural upliftment and swaraj. Education, for him, was a tool for social reform.
- **Tagore**: Sought to nurture humane, independent global citizens. His vision transcended national boundaries to promote universal human unity.

4. Methodologies

- **Gandhi**: Advocated experiential learning—education through doing. He stressed practical engagement over rote learning or textbook dependence.
- **Tagore**: Supported individualized learning tailored to each child. He believed love for learning should replace rigid academic pressure.

5. Impact and Legacy

- **Gandhi**: Nai Talim influenced rural skill-based education and vocational training, though it saw limited mainstream adoption.
- **Tagore**: Founded Visva-Bharati University, a lasting model of liberal and cultural education. His methods inspired alternative and open schooling globally.

Social Reforms Initiated by Various Governors and Viceroys

Governors and Viceroy	Social Reforms Undertaken
Lord William Bentick (1828-1835)	Abolition of Sati and other cruel rites (1829) Suppression of female infanticide and Thuggee (1830) Abolition of lawlessness Abolition of human sacrifice
Lord Ellenborough (1842-1844)	Abolition of slavery (1843)
Lord Hardinge I (1844-1848)	Abolition of female infanticide Abolition of human sacrifice
Lord Dalhousie (1848-1856)	Widow Remarriage Act 1856 championed the cause of female education

Legislative Initiatives for Social Causes Till 1947

- **Abolition of female infanticide:**
  - **Bengal Regulation Acts (1795 and 1804):** The Bengal Regulation Acts of 1795 and 1804 made it unlawful to kill a female newborn.
  - A law outlawing female infanticide in 1870 was passed to change how Indian culture was perceived.
- **Abolition of Sati:**
  - **Bengal Sati Regulation (1829):** In 1829, the Governor-General of India Lord William Bentinck passed Bengal Sati Regulation 1829 which made the practice of Sati illegal in all of British India.
  - **Culpable homicide:** By this regulation, the people who abetted sati were declared guilty of "culpable homicide".
- **Abolition of Slavery:**
  - **Charter Act of 1833:** In the Charter Act of 1833, slavery was outlawed in India.
  - **Act V of 1843:** By the Act V of 1843, the practice of slavery was criminalised.
  - **Penal Code of 1860:** Trading of slaves was prohibited by the Penal Code of 1860 as well.
- **Widow Remarriage:**
  - **Hindu Widows' Remarriage Act of 1856:** It legalised the remarriage of Hindus.
  - **Rights and inheritances:** This act also provided all the rights and inheritances to all the windows that they had at the time of her first marriage.
- **Prohibition of Child Marriage:**
  - **Native Marriage Act (Civil Marriage Act) of 1872:** It sought to enact legislation against child marriage, but its reach was highly constrained because it did not cover Muslims, Hindus, or other accepted religions.
  - **Age of Consent Act of 1891:** B.M. Malabari's efforts paid off in 1891 when the Age of Consent Act, which forbade the marriage of girls younger than 12 years old, was passed.
  - **Child Marriage Restraint Act of 1929:** Also known as the **Sharda Act**, it set the age of majority for marriage at 14 for girls and 18 for boys.

Key Words

Stages of colonialism, British paramountcy, Policies of expansion, Economic exploitation, Drain of Wealth, Educational reforms, Development of judiciary, Press control, Civil service evolution, Infrastructure development, Social policies, Legislative reforms in British India.

	Previous Year Questions	Year
1.	How far was the Industrial Revolution in England responsible for the decline of handicrafts and cottage industries in India?	2024
2.	What was the difference between Mahatma Gandhi and Rabindranath Tagore in their approach towards education and nationalism?	2023
3.	Why was there a sudden spurt in famines in colonial India since the mid-eighteenth century? Give reasons.	2022
4.	Examine how the decline of traditional artisanal industry in colonial India crippled the rural economy.	2017
5.	Examine critically the various facets of economic policies of the British in India from the mid-eighteenth century till independence.	2014